

CHAPTER SIX

6. THE LEADING/DIRECTING FUNCTION

6.1 Introduction

As a function of management, directing focuses on the leading activities undertaken by managers at different levels. Leading activities include motivating, communicating, supervising and resolving conflicts that arise from time to time. The leader's approach, the principles that he/she employs, the style of leadership that he/she assumes, the overall personality of the leader and the methods that he/she uses in resolving conflict need special attention to understand the unit as a whole.

6.2 Meaning of leading/Directing and leadership

Directing\Leading: is a management function which deals with what managers do to employees or cause them to do certain activities that lead to the achievement of the objectives of the organization. It includes guidance, supervision, communication, leadership, and inspiring, coordinating and motivating employees for an action.

6.3. Components of leading/Directing:

Directing includes many activities such as guidance, supervision, communication, leading, coordinating and motivating. *Among these only three components will be discussed: Motivation, Leadership and Communication in the same order.*

6.3.1. Motivation:

6.3.1.1. Meaning of Motivation:

Motivation is the act of inducing, instigating, inciting or promoting someone to a particular course of action to get the results expected of him/her.

“Motivation is a general term applying to the entire class of drives, desires, needs, wishes and similar forces that induce an individual or a group of people to work.” Koontz and O'Donnell.

The goal of motivation is to cause people to put forth their best efforts with enthusiasm and effectiveness in order to achieve and hopefully surpass the organizational objectives. In order to motivate employees, managers should identify the basic motives that initiate people. Motives are inner forces that move a person to believe in a certain way. Sources of motives can be biogenic or psychogenic needs. Biogenic needs arise from physiological states of tension such as hunger, thirst, and discomfort. Psychogenic needs arise from psychological states of tension such as a need for self-esteem, affiliation, achievement, status, recognition or belonging. This fact can be expressed in short as follows.

/Needs=>Motives=>Drive=>Action=>Satisfaction/

Human motivation is influenced by environmental factors. An environment is the physical and cultural surrounding within which we find ourselves at any given time. For example, a person who see an ice cold water may feel thirsty; a person who sees the rain falling may feel cold; a person who feels the smell of food can feel hungry; a person who is satisfied in his job may be dissatisfied by the mistreatment of his boss.

6.3.1.2. Importance of Motivation

Motivation provides the following advantages to an organization.

- Through motivation, an organization can utilize the factors of production to the maximum.
- When people are motivated there is willingness to work.
- When people are highly motivated absenteeism would be less.
- Labor turnover would be low.
- Efficient personnel would be attracted to the organization.
- If there is positive motivation in the organization, there will be good labor relations.
- The knowledge and skill of employees can be developed and improved.
- Motivation develops a sense of belongingness.
- Motivation serves as a basis of co-operation.

6.3.1.3. Early Views of Motivation

At different stages in the evolution of management thought managers subscribed to different models or theories of motivation. They held their own views or supported the views of others.

i. The Traditional Model:

This model is associated with Fredrick W. Taylor and scientific management. It assumed that workers were essentially lazy and that managers understood the worker's job better than the worker. Workers could only be motivated by financial reward and had little to contribute beyond their labor. Here workers had been expected to accept management's authority in return for high wages made possible by the efficient system designed by management and implemented by the workers.

A motivational theory related to this model is for example the reward vs punishment or the stick vs carrot theory. This theory states that if employees perform well reward them if not punish them. The reward/ carrot given for "good" behavior could be in the form of money, bonus, titles, special office arrangements, awards, and more power or company cars. The Punishment/stick administered for "bad" behavior could be in the form of demotion, undesirable transfers, no pay increase or lack of recognition.

ii. The Human Relations Model:

This model is associated with Elton Mayo and other human relations researchers. Elton Mayo and his associates carried out a study at the Haw-thorne Plant of Western Electric Company in the 1930's. They studied the effects of environmental factors on productivity and concluded that worker's productivity increases when special attention is given them; the attention gives them a special status among their peers. Workers attitudes are the key to their motivation, and fair treatment improves their attitude. They believed that managers could motivate employees by acknowledging their social needs and by making they feel useful and important. Workers were expected to accept management's authority because supervisors treated them with consideration and attending to their needs.

iii. The Human Resources Model:

This model was developed by Douglas Mc Gregor, Abraham Maslow, Chris Argyris, Rensis Likert and Herzberg.

They generally suggest that employees are motivated by many factors other than money or the desire for satisfaction, such as the need for achievement and meaningful work. They argued that most people are already motivated to do a good job and that they do not automatically see work as undesirable. Employees are likely to get satisfaction from good performance. Thus, employees can be given far more responsibility for making decisions and carrying out their tasks. The contribution of each scientist will be discussed as follows.

a. The Hierarchy of Needs Theory of Abraham H. Maslow.



- ✓ Physiological Needs: are the basic needs for food, rest and sex.
- ✓ Safety Needs: are the needs for physical and economic security.
- ✓ Social/Love Needs: are the needs for affection and belongingness.
- ✓ Esteem Needs: are the needs self-respect and recognition
- ✓ Self-Actualization needs: include the drive to become what one is capable of becoming.

These include growth, achieving one's potential, self-fulfillment, etc.

He stipulated that as the first level needs are satisfied the next and higher level needs emerge. He also stated that a satisfied need cannot be a motivator. Once a person satisfies a certain need that need will not motivate him/her any more.

b. Participative-Management Approach:

This approach to motivation was developed by Rensis Likert and his associates. They stated that managers who practice effective human relations let lower-level personnel to participate in making decisions that affect them in achieving better cooperation higher motivation and greater productivity. People who do some kind of work want to be consulted about how to do it.

c. Douglas Mc Gregor:

Mc Gregor developed Theory X and Theory Y assumptions.

Theory X Assumption: This assumption is a pessimistic, static and rigid approach. According to this assumption:

- Authority and control are external.
- Average human beings have an inherent dislike of work and will avoid it if they can.

- Because of their characteristics, most people must be coerced, controlled, directed and threatened with punishment to make them put forth adequate effort toward the achievement of organizational objectives.
- Average human beings prefer to be directed, wish to avoid responsibility, have relatively little ambition and want security above all.

Theory Y Assumption:

This assumption is an optimistic a dynamic and flexible approach. According to this assumption:

- Emphasis on self- direction and the integration of individual needs with organizational demands are necessary.
- The expenditure of physical effort and mental effort in work is as natural as play or rest.
- People will exercise self-direction and self-control in the service of objectives to which they are committed.
- The degree of commitment to objectives is in proportion to the size of the rewards associated with their achievement.
- Under proper conditions the average person learns not only to accept but also to seek responsibility.
- The capacity to think creatively to innovate and to solve organizational problems is widely not narrowly distributed in the population.
- The intellectual potentialities of the average human being are only partially utilized.

6.3.1.4. Integrative Approaches to Motivation

i. The Expectancy Approach

This model of motivation which was put forward by David Nadler and Edward Lwler. Specifies that the effort to achieve high performance is a function of the perceived likelihood that high performance can be achieved and will be achieved. It achieved, it will be rewarded and the reward will be worth the effort expended. The expectancy approach attempts to account for differences among individuals and situations. Three assumptions are identified in relation with the expectancy approach. They are:

- Performance-outcome Expectancy:*** According to this assumption, individuals engaged in or contemplating a certain behavior expect certain consequences. For example, a worker who is thinking about doubling his or her output may expect that his act will result in praise, more pay, or perhaps no reward at all; the worker may even expect hostility from other workers. Each expected outcome will affect the individual's decision on whether or not to proceed with the contemplated behavior.
- Valence:*** This refers to the value or motivating strength of a reward to the individual. Valence is determined by the individual and is not an objective quality of the outcome itself; for a given situation valence differs from one person to the next.
- Effort:*** Performance Expectancy: People's expectations of how difficult it will be to perform successfully will also affect their decision on whether or not to proceed. For example, an individual may be told that increasing sales by 50 percent will lead to a much desired salary increase. Before deciding whether or not to pursue the task he asks in effect, 'Can I do it?'

and ‘If I do it, what will it bring to me?’ and ‘Is what it will bring me worth the effort of doing it?’

ii. *The Equity or Inequity Approach*

This is a theory of job motivation emphasizing the role played by an individual’s belief in the equity or fairness of rewards and punishments in determining his or her performance and satisfaction. Equity can be defined as a ratio between the individual’s job inputs compared with the rewards others are receiving for similar job inputs.

iii. *Goal Setting Theory*

This is a cognitive approach to the theory of work motivation which holds that workers are conscious (cognitive) creatures who strive toward goals.

According to psychologist Edwin Locke, the natural inclination to set and strive for goals is useful only if the individual both understands and accepts a particular goal. To motivate, goals should be:

- Specific and challenging, and
- Developed by the participation of subordinates rather than receiving them from superiors by means of one-way, top-down process.

6.3.1.5. Guidelines to Effective Motivation

Richard M. Steers and Lyman W. Porter suggest the following guidelines of effective motivation.

- i. Managers must actively and intentionally motivate their subordinates.
- ii. Managers should understand their own strengths and limitations before attempting to modify those of others.
- iii. Managers must recognize that employees have different motives and abilities.
- iv. Rewards should be related to performance, not seniority or other non-merit based considerations.
- v. Jobs should be designed to offer challenge and variety; subordinates must clearly understand what is expected of them.
- vi. Management should foster an organizational culture oriented to performance.
- vii. Managers should stay close to employees and remedy problems as they arise.
- viii. The active cooperation of employees should be sought in improving the organization’s output; employees are, after all also stakeholders in the organization.

6.3.1.6. Basic Factors that Motivate

The following factors are considered as motivators.

- i. *Challenging Work:*** To motivate personnel to perform at their best, managers should try to make work as challenging as possible, keeping in mind that what is challenging to one person may not excite another.
- ii. *Participation in Planning:*** The higher in an organization one goes, the more participation in planning becomes a strong motivational force. Even at lower levels participation is important. If an individual is allowed to participate in developing the plan and setting goals to be achieved, he feels important and valuable to the organization. This motivates him in his job.

- iii. **Recognition and Status:** The desire for recognition and the improved status it brings appears universal regardless of position, age, education and other factors. All of us seem to want approval from our peers as well as from our superiors. Therefore, supervisors should give recognition for a specialized effort offered by subordinates.
- iv. **More Responsibility and Power:** More responsibility and power satisfies the need for security. The need for security that is the desire to be free from fear of such things as job loss, demotion and loss of income apparently are inherent in all of us. Too little or too much security can be harmful.
- v. **Independence of Action:** The desire to be one's own boss appears to give more self-reliance than others. Hence, supervisors should give their subordinates freedom to make certain decisions by themselves without referring to their superiors now and then.
- vi. **Opportunity for Personal Growth:** Growth in skill, professional capability and experience are very important in people's lives. A strong motivational device is to promise and then deliver an opportunity to an individual to grow more skillful as a result of work experience.
- vii. **Good Working Conditions:** Working conditions, which include both physical and psychological factors surrounding a job, vary in importance as a motivator. Some people may like a modern work environment while others may be motivated by unattractive environment.
- viii. **Job Enrichment:** This factor which is also known as job reform is the process of designing jobs to make them more interesting, challenging and meaningful. It includes efforts that are planned to make jobs more satisfying such as:
 - Giving workers greater freedom in choosing work methods; and
 - Letting them plan their work.

Finally, the result of motivation is high morale. High morale is a confident, resolute, often self-sacrificing attitude of a group that has strong faith in its leadership and believes organizational goals can be achieved.

Low morale is just the opposite. It is characterized by depression, lack of confidence and negative attitude toward the achievement of goals.

6.3.2. Leadership

6.3.2.1. Meaning of Leadership;

Leadership; is the process of directing and influencing the task-related activities of group members.

Leadership: is a dynamic relationship based on mutual influence and common purpose between leaders and collaborators in which both are moved to higher levels of motivation and moral development as they affect real, intended change.

Three important parts of this definition are the terms relationship, mutual, and collaborators.

- *Relationship* is the connection between people.
- *Mutual* means shared in common.
- *Collaborators* cooperate or work together. This definition of leadership says that the leader is influenced by the collaborators while they work together to achieve an important goal.

A traditional definition of leadership: is an interpersonal influence directed toward the achievement of a goal or goals.

Three important parts of this definition are the terms interpersonal, influence, and goal.

- *Interpersonal* means between persons. Thus, a leader has more than one person (group) to lead.
- *Influence* is the power to affect others.
- *Goal* is the end one strives to attain.

Leaders can be chosen or appointed. Managers are appointed leaders.

- i. **Chosen leaders** are those chosen from among members. The leader is chosen by members; i.e. members chose their leader. The leader is chosen on the basis of dominance physically or psychologically.
- ii. **Appointed leaders** are those that are not chosen by members. They may or may not be members of the group. They are appointed by someone outside the group. This is practical in formal organizations.

Managers should have an ability to lead which is not of course written on the job description but simply an implied one. Leaders are more likely to arise during crises such as war, or depression than when conditions are stable. When people feel threatened they are eager to follow someone who appears able to protect them and return conditions to normal.

6.3.2.2. Approaches to the Study of Leadership

There are three major approaches to the study of leadership: ***Trait, behavioral and situational approaches.***

i. The Trait Approach to the Study of Leadership

According to this approach, leadership emphasizes psychological traits (qualities), compelling obedience from subordinates. The leader is endowed with natural psychological traits that give him/her advantages over most mortals. Leaders in general as a group have been found to be brighter more extrovert and more self-confident than non-leaders; they also tend to be taller. This theory is connected to the notion that leaders are born and not made. However, this approach is contested by a number of weaknesses. Even though it was mostly accepted during 1930s and 1950s.

ii. The Behavioral Approach to the Study of Leadership

Unlike traits, behaviors can be learned and so it follows that individuals trained in appropriate leadership behavior would be able to lead more effectively. Thus, rather than trying to figure out what effective leaders were, researchers tried to determine what effective leaders did, how they delegate tasks, how they communicated with and tried to motivate their subordinates, how they carried out their tasks and so on. These researchers have focused on two aspects of leadership behavior: leadership functions and leadership styles.

❖ ***The two major functions of leaders are “task related” or problem-solving functions and “Employee-oriented group-maintenance” or social functions.***

- a. ***Task-related functions*** might include suggesting solutions and offering information and opinions;

Task-oriented managers closely supervise subordinates to ensure that the task is performed to their satisfaction. A manager with this leadership style is more concerned with getting the job done than with the development and growth of subordinates.

b. Employee/group maintenance functions: may include anything that helps the group operate more smoothly, agreeing with or complimenting another group member or mediating group disagreements.

Employee-oriented managers try to motivate rather than to control subordinates. They encourage group members to perform tasks by allowing group members to participate in decisions that affect them and by forming friendly, trusting and respectful relationships with group members.

❖ **In order to analyze the relationship between the two factors a matrix grid has been developed.**

The Leadership Grid: The Managerial/Leadership Grid, developed by Robert Blake and Jane Mouton to help measure a manager's relative concern for people and tasks is depicted below. In the diagram the relative concern of leaders for people and task is depicted in a two dimensional matrix grid. The vertical line represents concern for people whereas the horizontal line represents concern for production.

Concern for People	9	1,9							9,9	
	8									
	7									
	6									
	5				5,5					
	4									
	3									
	2									
	1	1,1							9,1	
		1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
Concern for Production										

- **Style 1, 1 management is impoverished management;** low concern for people and low concern for tasks or production. This style is sometimes called laissez-faire management, because the leader abdicates his or her leadership role. Exertion of minimum effort to get required work done is appropriate to sustain organizational membership.
- **Style 1, 9 management is country club management:** High concern for employees but low concern for production. Thoughtful attention to needs of people for satisfying relationships leads to a comfortable friendly organization atmosphere and work tempo.
- **Style 9, 1 management is task or authoritarian management.** It shows high concern for production and efficiency but low concern for employees. Efficiency in operations results from arranging conditions of work in such a way that human elements interfere to a minimum degree.
- **Style 5, 5 is a middle-of-the-road management.** Here an intermediate amount of concern for both production and employee satisfaction exists. Adequate organization performance is

possible through balancing the necessity to get out work with maintaining morale of people at a satisfactory level.

- ***Style 9, 9 management is team or democratic management.*** It indicates a high concern for both production and employee morale and satisfaction. Work accomplishment is from committed people; interdependence through a 'common stake' in organization purpose leads to relationships of trust and respect.

iii. Contingency Approach to the Study of Leadership

No one trait was common to all effective leaders and no one style was effective in all situations. Therefore, this new approach was developed to include situations that influenced the effectiveness of a particular leadership style.

Contingency approach is the view that the management technique that best contributes to the attainment of organizational goals might vary in different types of situations or circumstances.

Some of the situational factors in leadership effectiveness are:

- The leader's personality, past experience and future expectations.
- The expectations and behavior of superiors.
- Subordinate's characteristics, expectations and behaviors.
- Task requirements
- Organizational culture and policies
- Peers' expectations and behavior

6.3.2.3. Major Principles or Guidelines of Leading/Leadership

H.Koontz (1989, p. 485-489), in his book "Management" points out the following principles of managerial leadership.

- Principle of harmony of objective.* The more managers can harmonize the personal goals of individuals with the goals of the enterprise, the more effective and efficient the enterprise will be.
- Principle of motivation.* Since Motivation is not a simple cause-and-effect matter, the more managers carefully assess a reward structure, look upon it from a situation and contingency point of view, and integrate it into the entire system of managing, the more effective a motivation program and leadership will be.
- Principles of leadership.* People tend to follow those who, in their view, offer them a means of satisfying their personal goals; therefore, the more managers understand what motivates operatives, and the more they reflect this understanding in carrying out their managerial actions, the more effective they are likely to be as leaders.
- Principle of communication clarity.* Communication tends to be clear when it is expressed in a language and transmitted in a way that can be understood by the receiver. The responsibility of the sender is to formulate the message so that it is understandable to the receiver.
- Principle of communication integrity.* The greater the integrity and consistency of written, oral and nonverbal messages, as well as of the moral behavior of the sender, the greater the acceptance of the message by the receiver.

- f. Principle of supplemental use of informal organization.* Communication tends to be more effective when managers utilize the informal organization to supplement the communication channels of the formal organization. Informal organization is a phenomenon managers must accept. Information, true or not, flows quickly through the informal organization.

6.3.2.4. Personal Characteristics of an Ideal Leader

Leadership is an intangible art. The success /effectiveness of leaders can best be judged by the behavior of their subordinates not by what they profess. When subordinates perform well, cooperate effectively and put forth extra effort to achieve group goals, the manager is described as a good leader. When people perform badly fail to cooperate and do a minimal amount of work the manager is described as a weak or ineffective leader.

“The overall effectiveness of leadership is a function of the effectiveness of decisions minus the cost of making the decisions plus the value realized in developing people’s abilities by means of committed decision making.” Vroom and Jago.

The following are personal characteristics of an ideal leader:

- a. Ability to inspire others.* A leader’s charisma is his/her personal qualities of being attractive, extra-special and usually interesting. These qualities enable the leader to be acceptable by his/her followers.
- b. Ability to understand human behavior.* To gain the respect and cooperation of people, it is necessary to understand them and give them the due respect.
- c. Similarity to the group.* Occasionally, there is a need on the part of managers to look like the group when some kinds of social gathering goes on.
- d. Verbal assertiveness.* An ideal leader is assertive; he/she has the ability to speak up and make people understand him/her.
- e. Willingness to communicate honestly.* In life, honesty is the best policy. This means, an ideal leader tells the truth; straight forwardness, fairness in conduct and speech, openness and transparency are good and essential qualities.
- f. Ability to set up example to be followed.* An ideal is diligent. He/she does not behave in a manner that goes against the ethical and cultural standards of the people with whom he/she works.
- g. Willingness to take risks.* An ideal leader is daring enough to take risks in the right proportion. It is this readiness to take risks that makes organizational life more exciting.
- h. Willingness to assume responsibility.* An ideal leader does not shun responsibility. He/she knows and takes responsibility that a position entails.
- i. Willingness to be supportive of personnel.* Occasionally situations force the leader to assume a paternalistic attitude towards personnel that are desperately in problems that they could not overcome without the help of the organization.
- j. Skill in the art of compromise.* Compromising is one of the techniques of resolving conflicts. It is an art that requires skill. An ideal leader needs to master this art.

- k. *Ability to tolerate criticism.* Criticisms are either constructive or destructive. AS a leader, a manager has to be able to differentiate the two, accept the constructive, and refute the destructive ones convincingly.

So, according to the contingency theory of leadership described above, situational factors and certain personality attributes or traits interact in determining leadership effectiveness. This theory, as pointed out earlier, considers contingency variables as those variables that influence the relationship between leadership styles and subordinate response to those styles.

6.3.2.5. Theories of Leadership Styles

Rensis Likert has developed a system for classifying leaders in to four based on their leadership style. They are:

i. *Exploitative /Authoritative Leadership Style/:*

- They are autocratic
- They do not seek the opinions of subordinates
- They make all major decisions independently
- They motivate through fear and punishment

ii. *Benevolent /Authoritative Leadership Style/:*

- They have a “big-daddy” approach to leadership.
- They sometimes seek advice from subordinates, but make key decisions themselves.
- They use both fear and rewards to motivate.
- They say to subordinates, “I will treat you all right and see that your needs are met if you play along with the system.”

iii. *Consultative Leadership Style:*

- They have considerable confidence in their subordinates.
- They delegate extensively.
- They encourage subordinates to make recommendations.
- They rely on rewards more than punishment to motivate.

iv. *Democratic Participative /Group leadership style/:*

- They intentionally seek to involve members of the group in decision making process
- They liberally delegate authority and use rewards, not punishment to motivate.
- This leadership style is more effective in achieving group goals than any other style.

Other indicates a fifth category as laissez-faire style of leadership. These leaders do not have a leadership ability and confidence. They do not set goals to the group rather the group sets its own goal.

6.3.2.6. Leadership and Conflict Resolution/Management

Definition of Conflict: A conflict is an interactive state manifested in disagreements, differences or incapability within or between social entities (individuals, groups and whole organization). It is a fact of life that occurs and a result of incompatible goals interfering with each other as they try to attain their respective goals.

There are five stages of conflict.

- Stage 1. Latent conflict: arises from competition.

- Stage 2. Perceived conflict: may arise due to misunderstandings of the points of view of others:
- Stage 3. Felt conflict: is a stage at which perceived conflict develops into felt conflict creating anxieties and tensions
- Stage 4. Manifest conflict: may take the form of any conflict behavior breakdowns of cooperative interaction- fistfights, insults, etc.
- Stage 5. Conflict aftermath: results from inadequate resolution of conflict situations. If suppressed, the latent conditions for conflict will remain to flare up again at a later date.

Types of Conflict:

- i. Intra-personal/Intra-individual conflict:* occurs when a member of an organization is required to perform certain tasks and roles which do not match his/her expertise, goals, interests and values.
- ii. Inter-personal/Inter-individual conflict:* refers to conflict between two or more organization members of the same or different hierarchical levels or merits. It can be generated from disagreement over organization policies, power struggles, competitions, anger, distrust, fear, rejection, etc.
- iii. Intra-group/Intra-individual group conflict:* is conflict among members of a group (department) or between two or more sub-groups within a group; it may also occur as a result of incompatibilities or disagreements between some or all members of a group. It can be generated from leadership styles of the heads, or an individual violating group norms.
- iv. Inter-group conflict:* is between two or more units or groups within an organization. Conflicts between line and staff, administrative quarters, and departments are examples.

Conflicts can be positives/functional (result in better ideas, innovations, etc), or negative/dysfunctional.

The amount of performance depends on the levels of conflicts. Low conflict results in good performance while high conflict results in anxiety, fear and reduced performance.

Methods of Conflict Resolving/Conflict Management:

Depending on whether the conflict is functional or dysfunctional, one can stimulate or resolve it. The following are five methods of resolving conflicts:

- i. Dominating or compelling:* This approach depends on forcing behavior to win one's position.
- ii. Smoothing or obliging:* refers to the tendency to minimize or suppress the open recognition of real or perceived differences while emphasizing common interests.
- iii. Compromising:* refers to the tendency to sacrifice one's own position by seeking a middle ground by splitting the differences in conflict situations. This is the most widely used technique.
- iv. Integrating:* involves openness in exchange of information, and examination of differences to reach a solution that is acceptable to both parties.
- v. Avoiding or flight is withdrawing, by-passing, and side-stepping.* This is at the other extreme of dominance.

Scientific steps for Conflict Resolving/Conflict Management:

Conflict resolution must be handled just like a problem-solving process. UNESCO suggests the following scientific steps.

- 1st. Recognize the existence of the problem;
- 2nd. Establish a hypothetical solution(s);
- 3rd. Select the hypothesis and assess its feasibility;
- 4th. Select the optimal (best) solution; and
- 5th. Check and make adjustment if necessary.

The manager can be an initiator, a defendant, and a mediator or conciliator in conflict situations.

6.3.3. Communication

6.3.3.1. Definition of Communication:

There is no agreeable single definition for communication but a number of scholars define it in the following manner.

- Communication is effective self-expression.
- Communication is the exchange of messages in writing, speaking or images.
- Communication is sharing information or providing entertainment through works or speech or other methods.
- Communication is the exchange of meanings between individuals using a common symbol system.
- Communication is the process whereby one person transmits a message through a channel to another person, with some effect.
- Communication is an intercourse by words, letters, symbols or messages and is a way that one organization member shares meaning and understanding with another.” Koontz and O'Donnell.
- To communicate means to make known, to impart or to transmit information.

Each definition has elements of truth or utility, but no one of them is complete. Managers, rarely, spend their time alone at their desks thinking, planning or contemplating alternatives. Infact managerial time is spent largely in face-to-face electronic or telephone communication with subordinates, peers, supervisors, suppliers or customers. They transmit and receive ideas, reports, data and other forms of information needed to make an enterprise function. The success achieved by an organization reflects the effectiveness of its communication.

6.3.3.2. Elements in the Communication Process

Communication can be thought of as a process involving five elements.

- i. The message sender is the person who sends the message.
- ii. The message is the information.
- iii. The encoder is the person who feeds the message in the message vehicle.
- iv. The message vehicle is the means by which the message is transmitted. The vehicle may be:
 - a. Face-to-face. This includes one-to-one contact personally in discussion or several people in discussion, committee meetings, etc.

- b. Written Statements. Which may include memos, status reports, recommendations, tax reports, letters, etc.
- c. Advertisement. Which may include radio, television, newspaper, magazine, billboard direct mail etc.
- d. Telephone telegraph, e-mail, fax
- v. The decoder is the person who interprets the message from the message-vehicle.
- vi. The message receiver is any one the message sender wants to influence or inform.
- vii. The message feedback is the reversal of the communication process that occurs when the receiver expresses his or her reaction to the sender's message.
- viii. Noise: is anything that confuses, disturbs, diminishes or interferes with communication. It may occur at any stage of communication and it can be internal or external.

For communication to be effective, the message must be as brief and simple as possible.

6.3.3.3. Types of Communication

Communication may be: One way or two-way, Formal or informal and Vertical or Horizontal or diagonal

- i. **One way communication:** Any communication from the sender without expecting or getting feedback from the receiver. Example, policy statements from top managers.
- ii. **Two way communication:** Any communication that occurs or exists when the receiver provides feedback to the sender. Example, making a suggestion to a subordinate and receiving a question or counter suggestion.
- iii. **Formal communication:** is inherent to organizational communication and it might be vertical (downward, upward) or horizontal. It follows formal channels in an organization and maintains the hierarchy of authority and chain of command.
 - a. Downward communication starts with top management and flows down through management levels to line workers and non-supervisory personnel. Its major purposes are to advise, inform, direct, instruct and evaluate subordinates and to provide organization members with information about organizational goals and objectives.
 - b. Upward communication is the transmission of information formally from the lower levels of the organization to the top. Its main function is to supply information to the upper levels about what is happening at the lower levels. It includes progress reports, suggestions, explanations, and requests for aid or decisions.
 - c. Lateral/Horizontal Communication: This is a type of formal communication between people at different units having the same status in an organizational structure. It is communication between and among members of work group, different departments, one work group and another, line and staff. Its main purpose is to provide a direct channel for organizational coordination and problem solving.
- iv. **Informal Communication:** is the grapevine. Grapevines are developed within an organization as a result of common hobbies, hometowns, lunch or tea breaks, family ties, and social relationships among employees. The grapevine in an organization is made up of several informal communication networks that overlap and intersect at a number of points.

6.3.3.4. Barriers to Effective Communication

Any factor that impels the exchange of information between a sender and receiver is a barrier to communication. The following are some of the most common barriers of effective communication:

- ***Differing perceptions:*** Individual variation is one common source of communication barriers. People who have different backgrounds of knowledge and experience often perceive the same phenomenon from different perspectives.
- ***Language differences:*** or a message to be properly communicated, the words used must mean the same thing to the sender and the receiver. The same symbolic meaning must be shared. Jargons must be avoided.
- ***Noise:*** Any factor that disturbs confuses or otherwise interferes with communication. Noise leads to information distortion.
- ***Emotionality:*** Emotional reactions such as Unger, love, defensiveness, hate, jealousy, fear, and embarrassment influence how we understand others messages and how we influence others with our own messages.
- ***Inconsistent Verbal and Nonverbal Communication:*** The message we send and receive are strongly influenced by such nonverbal factors as body movements, clothing, the distance we stand from the person we are talking to, our posture, gestures, facial expression, eye movement and body contact.
- ***Distrust:*** The credibility of a message is to a large extent a function of the credibility of the sender in the mind of the receiver. A sender's credibility is in turn determined by a variety of factors.
- ***Filtering:*** Is the act of interpreting information only having better conditions